The

Barry Book

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Introduction

0.1 Project Overview

The Barry Book is a practical jazz textbook that intends to codify the Barry Harris system for the purpose of institutional adoption. The Barry Book *Project* aims to set a new standard for music education resources, not only in terms of quality, but also by making the textbook affordable for everyone.

Core Principles of the Project

1. This work will always be available free of charge, and will always be permissively licensed.
2. This work is collaborative by nature. Members of the Barry Book community make contributions to the project on GitHub.
3. This work uses *best in class* document preparation and musical engraving software.

The content of this textbook is designed to serve music students at any level of ability. The *fundamentals* chapters will be especially useful for students at the beginning of their musical journey. For best results, work through this text with a knowledgeable teacher in private lessons.

0.2 Barry Harris

Dr. Barry Harris is a jazz pianist, bebop evangelist, and music teacher whose career spanned more than seven decades. He is notable for preserving, advocating for, and demonstrating the authentic bebop system of Charlie Parker and Bud Powell. In recent years, his teaching has garnered world-wide acclaim and a surge of interest due to video recordings of his workshops being made publicly available on YouTube. At the time of writing, the popular Barry Harris Videos YouTube channel has over 11 million total views.

0.3 Practice or Theory?

Many composers of the past have been allergic to the term *music theory*. We find evidence of this when Schoenberg says, "...the usual music theorist has no practical skills at all – he is no master" (Schoenberg, Theory of Harmony, p. 7). The term musical practitioner is used regularly in this book to distinguish between those who *think* about music, and those who have demonstrated *great skill* in bringing it about. Oftentimes when great musical practitioners speak, their words aren't directly recorded, and this leads to the creation of an oral tradition, which is distorted, diluted, and proliferated over time. This book is an *attempt* to explain, reinforce, and clarify the oral tradition surrounding Barry Harris and his work.

For the purposes of this *practically-oriented* text, we will define musical theory narrowly as any system that attempts to describe how music is experienced by the listener. This sits in strong contrast to our definition of musical practice, which is essentially anything a great musical practitioner says or does. We are giving this leeway to great practitioners of the past because they have, at the very least, demonstrated great musical ability. This ability though, doesn't guarantee that they will be able to adequately explain how they work their magic. But if we are careful, we can obtain great insights from them in regards to how music *really* works.

Part I

Foundations

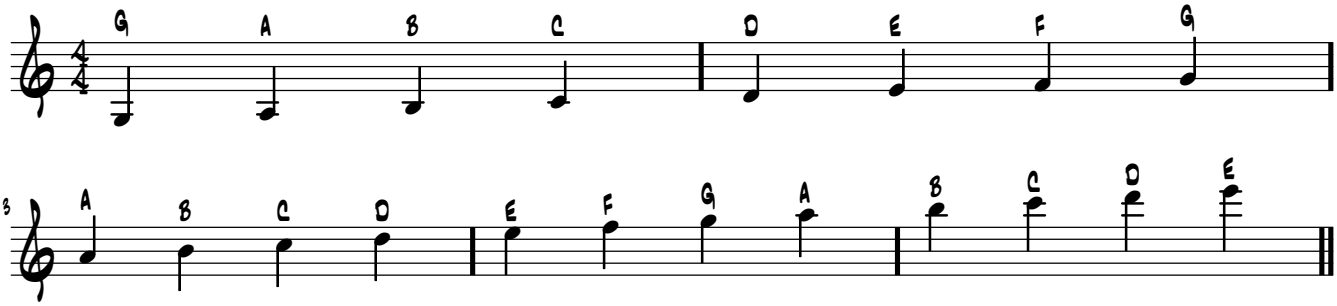
Chapter 1

Music Fundamentals

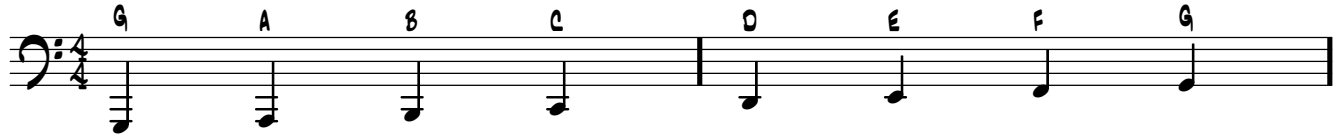
1.1 What is Musical Notation?

Musical notation can be thought of as a graph, where the *X axis*, the horizontal axis, is musical time that progresses from the first note to the last, and the *Y axis*, the vertical axis, represents musical pitch, which tells us which notes to play. The *musical alphabet* is composed of seven letter names from A through G which are placed on either a line or a space of the *musical staff*. The musical staff itself, which is a collection of five horizontal lines, doesn't tell us which note to play, a *clef* is required to tell us where *middle C* is. And when we know where middle C is, we can find all the other notes. For the purposes of this book, and the vast majority of musical applications, only the *treble clef*: 𝄞 and *bass clef*: 𝄢 are required. The following examples show the notes of each of the clefs with labels, for treble clef, the middle C is below the staff, and for bass clef the middle C is above the staff:

Example 1: Notes of the Treble Clef



Example 2: Notes of the Bass Clef





The X axis of music tells us how long to play each note. For the most part, our examples will be relatively simple from a rhythmic perspective. *Whole notes*: 𝅝 last for four beats, *half notes*: 𝅗𝅥 last for two beats, *quarter notes*: ♩ last for one beat, *8th notes* ♪ last for half a beat, and *16th notes*: 𝅘𝅥𝅯 last for a quarter of a beat. Notice that eighth notes, and every rhythmic value faster than that has a flag. They can be beamed together if they are in the same beat. We will see many examples where 8th notes are beamed together like so: ♫. The convention we use for this book is to beam in half notes. We will often see four 8th notes beamed together, or eight sixteenth notes, and so on.

But musical notes aren't sounding all of the time, we need a way to indicate silence. For this we use symbols called rests. They have rhythmic values that correspond to the above notes. We have the *whole rest*: 𝄻, the *half rest*: 𝄼, the *quarter rest*: 𝄽, the *eighth rest*: 𝄾, and the *sixteenth rest*: 𝄿.

Without the concept of meter in music, we would just see a very large sequence of notes one after the other, without deliniation. The meter that our music is in tells us how many notes, and what kind of notes, fit inside a single bar of music which are separated by the vertical bar lines that separate each bar. For the vast majority of jazz tunes, the meter will be $\frac{4}{4}$, which means we have four quarter notes per bar.

Our musical system has the ability to alter the pitch of a given note with special symbols called *accidentals*; where the *sharp symbol*: ♯, raises the note by one *half step* and the *flat symbol*: ♭, lowers the pitch of the note by one half step and the *natural symbol* ♮, cancels the effect of the existing accidental. It's important to note that the accidental only has its effect for the measure it's inside of and doesn't cross the bar line. This means that we have to notate the accidental alterations that we require in every single bar. Because this is tedious, the notion of a *key signature* was developed.

Key signatures are a default set of accidentals that are applied to each bar of a piece where a given key signature is active. Here we will see the key signature that corresponds to the key F, it has a single flat applied to the note B Which means that for every bar where the active key signature is F, every B becomes a B♭ unless an accidental overrides it. Any accidental symbol is only active for a single bar, then the key signature returns to its normal behavior:

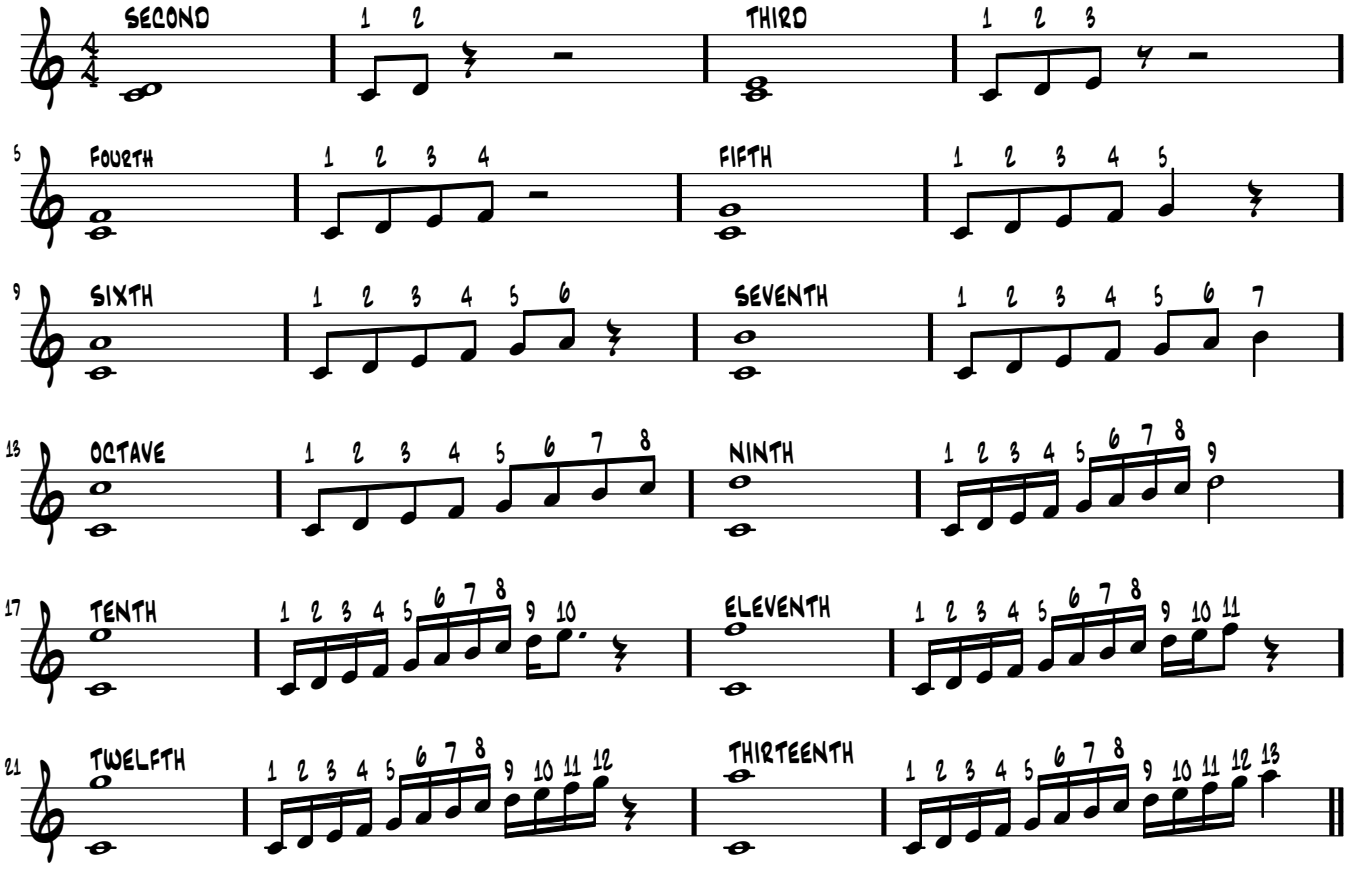
Example 3: The Key Signature of F Major



1.2 Intervals

An *interval* is the distance between two notes. Intervals can occur in sequence, in the context of a musical line. Or, the notes of an interval can occur simulatenously. To identify intervals, we count the distance in steps between the two note names of the interval. For example, the distance between the notes C and G is 5 steps if we include C, therefore it is a fifth. The following example shows the interval identification process for a number of intervals:

Example 4: Idenifying Intervals



We are half way there when it comes to classifying intervals. Now we need to count the half steps between the two notes of the interval. When counting the half steps we count all the half steps, all the black and white notes we have to move through to get to the last note, or if we're on guitar, we can just count how many frets it takes to get to the final note. When counting half steps we don't count the first note:

Example 5: Counting the Steps Between Intervals



The intervals of the fifth, when it has 7 half steps, is called a *perfect* fifth. This term perfect denotes the interval's quality. The two other perfect intervals are the perfect fourth, which is five half steps, and the perfect octave which is 12 half steps. The intervals of the fifth, fourth, and octave are called perfect because these intervals can't take on the interval qualities of *major* or *minor*, but all of the other intervals can, namely the second, third, sixth, and seventh all have minor and major versions. When we take a perfect fifth and add one half step it takes on a *augmented* quality, and when we subtract on half step from a perfect fifth it becomes a *diminished* fifth. This is true of all of the perfect intervals. For intervals that aren't perfect they can take on the the qualities of major and minor as well. This means that when we subtract one half step from a minor interval it become diminished, when we add one half step to a minor interval it becomes major, when we subtract one half step from a major interval it becomes minor, and when we add a halfstep to a major interval it becomes augmented.

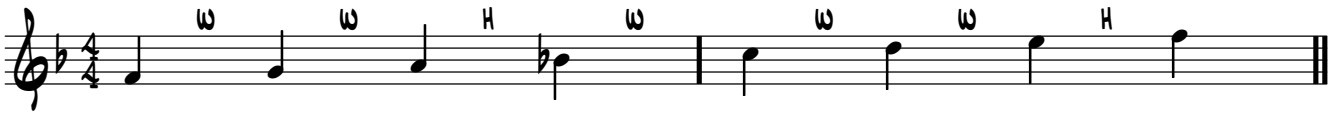
Interval	**Half Steps**	**Quality**	**Inverts to**
Minor 2nd	1	Minor	Major 7th
Major 2nd	2	Major	Minor 7th
Minor 3rd	3	Minor	Major 6th
Major 3rd	4	Major	Minor 6th
Perfect 4th	5	Perfect	Perfect 5th
Aug. 4th	6	Augmented	Dim. 5th
Dim. 5th	6	Diminished	Aug. 4th
Perfect 5th	7	Perfect	Perfect 4th
Minor 6th	8	Minor	Major 3rd
Major 6th	9	Major	Minor 3rd
Minor 7th	10	Minor	Major 2nd
Major 7th	11	Major	Minor 2nd
Perfect Octave	12	Perfect	Perfect Unison
Minor 9th	13	Minor	Major 7th
Major 9th	14	Major	Minor 7th
Minor 10th	15	Minor	Major 6th
Major 10th	16	Major	Minor 6th
Perfect 11th	17	Perfect	Perfect 5th
Aug. 11th	18	Augmented	Dim. 5th
Perfect 12th	19	Perfect	Perfect 4th
Minor 13th	20	Minor	Major 3rd
Major 13th	21	Major	Minor 3rd

Table 1.1: Some Information About the Intervals

1.3 Scales

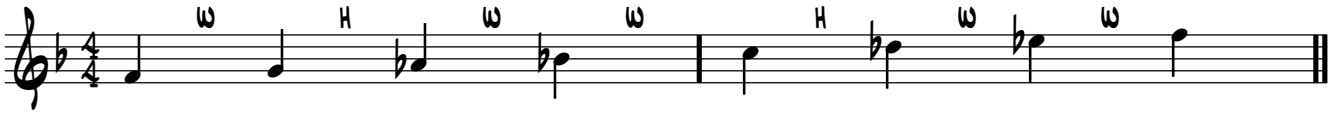
The great thing about Barry's method is that the outrageous scale syllabus of other methods is replaced by three scales. The *Major*, *Minor*, and *Tonic Minor* scales. All that's required in learning how to build these three scales is to learning the location of the half steps. In the following example we will denote the half steps with the letter H, notice that the half steps are between scale degrees three to four and scale degrees seven to one.

Example 6: Building a Major Scale



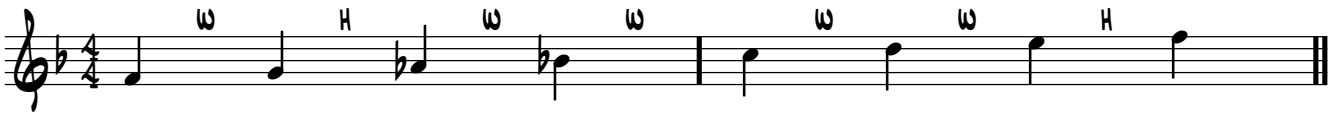
For the minor scale, the half steps are between the second and third scale degrees and the fifth and sixth:

Example 7: Building a Minor Scale



The tonic minor scale is similar to the major scale except for the third being flatted. This means that the half steps are between scale degrees two to three, and scale degrees six to seven.

Example 8: Building a Tonic Minor Scale



1.4 Chords

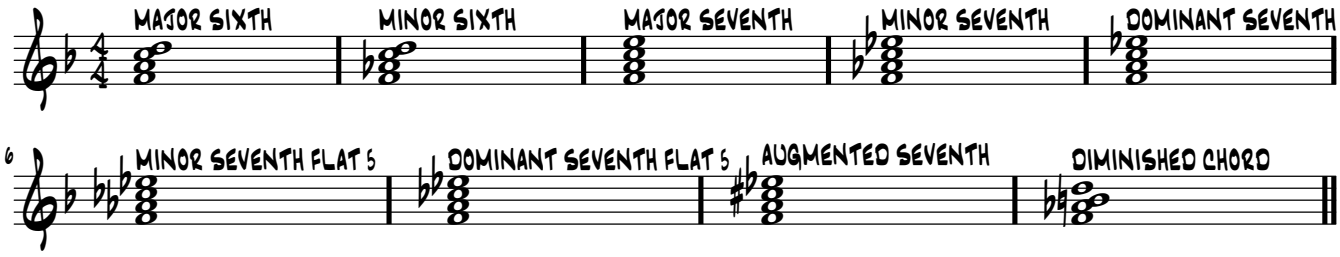
Another great aspect of Barry's system is that there's a much smaller amount of chords to learn than other methods. We need to know about the three note chords called *triads*. There are *major*, *minor*, and *augmented* triads. The major triad has a major third and a perfect fifth above the root note of the chord, the minor chord has the minor third and the major fifth, and the augmented chord has the major third and the augmented fifth:

Example 9: Triads We Need To Know



In terms of four note chords, that we refer to as *tetrads*, we need to know the *major sixth*, *minor sixth*, *major seventh*, *minor seventh*, *dominant seventh*, *minor 7 flat 5*, *dominant seventh flat five*, and *diminished chord*:

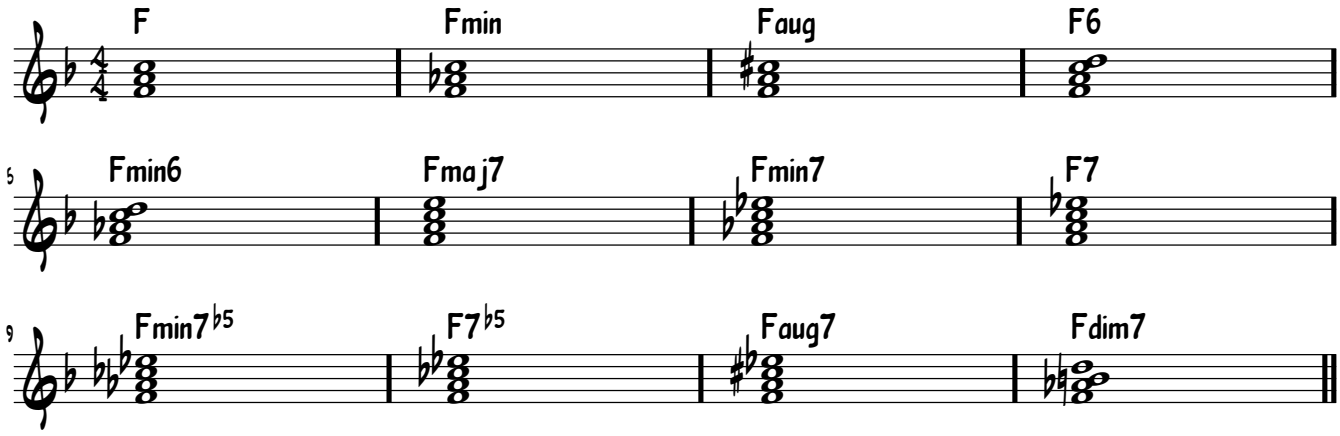
Example 10: Tetrads We Need To Know



1.5 Chord Symbols

It may take some time to get familiar with the chords in all of the keys, but it's well worth the struggle. Because quickly recognizing them is an essential skill in jazz. As a shorthand, jazz players have devised chord symbols that are placed above a melody that tell you what chords go with said melody. These will be commonly used through out the book:

Example 11: Attaching Chord Symbols to our Chords



1.6 Understanding Changes

Changes are the chords of a tune. But it isn't quite that simple, because in jazz it's a common procedure to vary the chords of a tune significantly. This means that learning the changes, or more accurately, just learning a tune, can be quite an involved procedure.

The Process of Learning a Tune

1. Identify and label the sections of the tune.
2. Identify the key areas implied by the melody.
3. Identify the harmonic function of each bar.
4. Most tunes have interesting changes that aren't functionally necessary, identify those.

5. Prepare the scale map[1] for the tune.
6. Listen to a few versions of the tune to get an idea of the changes they're playing.
7. Create our own version of the changes for our solo, extra credit if you make multiple versions.
8. Create an arrangement of the tune.
9. Practice the tune in a number of keys.
10. Create a recording to signify completion of the process and/or create a score of your arrangement.

[1] see the chapter on scale maps.

Part II

Linear Concepts

Chapter 2

Scale Maps

2.1 Motivating Scale Maps

Scale maps are preparatory exercises for linear improvisation on tunes. To create a scale map, we take the changes of a tune and go bar by bar substituting the appropriate scale for every chord. Barry's approach to linear improvisation is similar to, but not the same as, other chord-scale based approaches. The main difference is that Barry's method respects the harmonic functions that the changes infuse into a tune. For Barry, the ii^7 chord is a chord with predominant function that is a component of a $ii^7 \rightarrow V^7$ movement. Many modern methods would have us think of the ii^7 as a sonority in itself or a dorian sound, disconnected from the context of the functional harmonies.

Once we have the notes to play, we can perform the scale maps exercise. The procedure is to run up and down the scale in 8th notes. For chords that are a single bar, for example the ii^7 chord, you run up up to the seventh scale degree. When the same chord spans two bars, you run up an down the scale. This means that we land on the first scale degree on beat three of the second bar.

Example 12: $ii^7 \rightarrow V^7 \rightarrow I$ Scale Map



The next most common movement is the turnaround. Turnarounds are mostly used, by composers, to fill space or to generate a feeling of harmonic momentum towards a key center. In the Barry system, a four bar turnaround in a major key goes up and down the scale landing on the third of the VI^7 chord.

Example 13: Turnaround Scale Map



When the ii^7→V^7 is in a minor key, we to have think about how that works in the Barry system. For Barry, there is a preference for sixth chords. Instead of thinking of the ii^7 in minor as a seventh chord, we can think about it as the minor sixth chord; It's just a different way of thinking about the same notes. The Dmin7$^{(\flat 5)}$ becomes a Fmin6 . But in Barry's system, a minor sixth chord is the *sixth on the fifth* of a dominant chord. So really, we can think about our minor ii^7 in C minor as B♭7 . Here we have a similar situation to the major turnaround where we are going down the scale and landing on the third.

Example 14: Minor ii^7→V^7→I Scale Map



For a turnaround in minor, we can use a few substitute colors from their family members to get a nice minor sound. For both the A7 and the G7 , we can use the dominant seventh chord that is a minor third above their root. Take a C♯dim7 chord and put an A under it in the bass, we see that it gives us a dominant seventh chord with a flattened ninth. Next, try to put a C under it. without changing the upper notes you will see that both chords are dominant seventh chords with a minor ninth, this demonstrates the relatedness of dominant chords who are minor thirds apart. The come from the same diminshed chord. We will play a Gmin6 scale on the A7 , which is the *sixth on the fifth* of C7 , which is the same relationship that B♭7 has to G7 .

Example 15: Minor Turnaround Scale Map



Functionally speaking, these four examples are sufficient to cover the vast majority of tunes. With the exception of ii^7→V^{7}s that are within a single bar. A one-bar ii^7→V^7 can be thought of as a bar with dominant function, so all we have to do is treat the one-bar ii^7→V^7 as if it were a bar with a single dominant chord.

Example 16: One Bar ii^7→V^7 Scale Map



If we ignore slash chords, which are bass notes that are notated inside of the chord symbols, and passing harmonies, that connect the structural changes of a tune, we can more or less create a scale map for any standard.

For the tunes in this book, the above approach to scale maps is sufficient. One thing to keep in mind is that diminished chords are either ignored when creating scale maps, or they are replaced with chords that have more standard functional characteristics, because the diminished chord doesn't really have a function[1], it's only used for the purposes of color.

[1]The diminished chord has four leading tones to four different keys separated by minor thirds. It has no direct tendency to any key area.

Chapter 3

All the Little Things

3.1 Little Things

Now that we can create simple scale maps for any tune, we can take the next step in our improvisation journey. With our scale maps we are essentially using four kinds of scales. The major scale which is used for when we have a major chord with tonic function, the minor 7 scale for when we have a minor seventh chord with predominant function, the minor scale with the raised sixth and raised seventh for when we have a minor chord with tonic function, and the dominant scale which is used for chords with dominant function. Next, we will practice what we call *little things*. These are short melodic modules that we practice in order to develop the technical dexterity required to improvise fluidly on tunes.

If the scale maps exercises are about learning to play the scales up and down in context, then a large part of our study of little things will be about finding different ways to practice these scales. One simple thing to try is playing our scale in thinds up and down. Practicing this in all 12 keys with the four different scales will take quite some time to get under our fingers.

Example 17: Scale in Thirds



Even with this simple example, there are a number of small variations we can practice.

Variations on the Thirds

- Maintain the same pitches but start on a different note.
- Offset the rhythm by one 8th note.
- Play slower or faster rhythmic values.
- Add a step above or below one of the notes (half or whole).

- Add some bebop turns (16th note triplets à la Parker).
- Add a chromatic glissando to, or from, a note.
- Instead of moving by step, move by a different interval.

Once we are comfortable with thirds like the above in all the necessary keys, we can apply this to a tune. It's important to remember to play this in time with a metronome. If we are comfortable performing the scale map as normal, we can now play through our tune in thirds without jumping around, like the scale maps do. We should maintain our direction and simply switch scales instead of jumping to the tonic of the other scale. This can become quite complex if we add some of the variations listed above to this process.

If this is too difficult for now, break the tune apart and practice in four bar sections, then stitch it together.

3.2 All of Them

Now that we are comfortable with our first little thing, we will address a few more. Remember that the variations we applied to the thirds excerise should be applied to all of our little things going forward. In addition to the above variations we should invent our own, because that's what improvisation is all about.

Example 18: All The Things



3.3 Bebop Chromatic Scale

Barry's scale exercises featuring chromatic notes are where things start sounding like bebop lines. Normally what Barry teaches here are his *half step rules*, but we will present a simplified model. The point of Barry's scale exercises are so that the notes of the scale we're playing land *on the beats*. If our notes aren't landing in the right spots, it sounds awkward. Here is an example that sounds wrong, we will see that notes foreign to our scale are landing *on the beat* on beat 4 of bar 1 and beat 1 of bar 2:

Example 19: Awkward Chromatic Scale



Looking at the previous example, we can see that when we get to the half step in the scale, the notes after it are landing in the wrong spot. The half steps between A and B♭, and D to E♭, are the problem. We can see that after A, everything is off by an 8th note. To fix this, we add an 8th note filler between A and B♭ to keep everything on track. There are a number of different filler notes we can choose, but we will choose a common solution, which is to insert the note who is one step above the *higher note* of the half step. Notice that the problematic B is now a B♭ in this example because we added a C between beats three and four:

Example 20: Bebop Chromatic Scale



On the way down we apply the same rule as ascending. We still deal with the half steps in the scale by inserting a note above the *highest note* of the halfstep.

Example 21: Bebop Chromatic Scale Descending



There is nothing wrong with scale notes that don't land on the beat, but for the most part, we should try to stay on track. It's quite normal for a solo to loosen up and become more intense as the choruses go by. But, if everything is loosey-goosey all the time, that's no bueno.

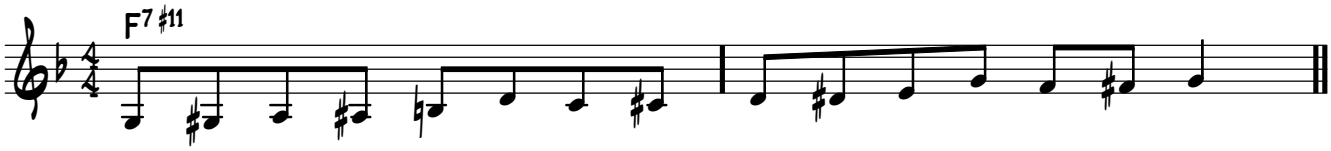
In the context of a solo we can choose to fill in the half steps in wherever we want. The above examples are just showing the concept for how we can fit every chromatic note into every change. As we practice our little things, let's try to throw some half steps in there while trying to stay on track by ensuring that every beat has a note that belongs to the scale of the moment.

3.4 Substituting Sonorities

Because this bebop chromatic scale concept can be applied to any scale we will find in a standard, we can apply this concept anywhere. This even works with more complex sonorities, here we are

playing a $F7^{(\sharp 11)}$ chord which is a G7 scale over F.

Example 22: Bebop Chromatic Scale Works with Subtituted Sonorites



Try out some of these sonorities in context and see what we can do in terms of combining a number of the approaches in this chapter.

Common Jazz Sonorites

1. $F7^{(\sharp 11)}$ = G7/F
2. $F7^{(\sharp 9)}$ = A♭7/F
3. $F7^{(\sharp 11 \flat 9)}$ = B7/F

3.5 Linear Delays

A good reason to practice the bebop chromatic scale concept is so that when we choose to put a note that's foreign to the scale on the beat, it can be more effective. This concept doesn't always have to be a note that isn't in the scale, it can also be a note that isn't the *obvious target* of the line. The idea behind delays is that we are leaning on the *wrongness* of a sound before making it right. The concept of a delay is most effective on a strong beat, meaning beats one and three in $\frac{4}{4}$ meter. We can see the delays at the beginning of each of the bars. E is a delay for the note E♭ in the first bar of the excerpt. In the second bar, the E♭ delays the D. And in the last bar, the C delays the B♭:

Example 23: Linear Delays from Last Three Bars of Anthropology



Chapter 4

A Rhythmic Language

4.1 Swing Feel

It's a common misconception that the *jazz feel* is a 8th note triplet figure like this:

Example 24: The Wrong Feel



For horn players, all we need to think about is tonguing the up-beats like this, but for guitar or piano players, we need to fake this effect by connecting the up-beats to the down-beats with a slur and to play the up-beat slightly louder. This process creates a natural peg-legged effect without being a silly 8th note triplet:

Example 25: The Correct Swing Feel



Part III

Harmonic Concepts

Chapter 5

Classical Harmony

5.1 What Do We Mean By Classical?

Classical music has a fairly consistent musical grammar that spans from approximately the 17th century to the somewhere in the early 20th century. The musical system that provides this level of consistency is called *thoroughbass*. Thoroughbass comes from the need to simplify large choral works so that the accompanists could fill in holes in the music due to missing singers. The procedure for preparing a thoroughbass accomaniment was to write out the lowest sounding voice of the music all the way through, then to add arabic numerals below that thoroughbass line to indicate the required intervals above the bass. Over time, instead of writing out all the intervals they devised a short hand that required a smaller number of numerals.

Classical harmony doesn't have a notion of harmonic function until well into the 19th century. The way they classified harmonies was based on if a certain chord was dissonant or not. For the most part, bass notes with figures above them are dissonant, with the exception of the figure *six*, which means a triad with the third in the bass.

In thoroughbass we measure the intervals from the written bass note. We don't think in terms of roots of chords, there are only intervals above bass notes. This means that a chord from the perspective of thoroughbass is a collection of intervals above a bass note and nothing more.

The term *dissonance* is of great importantance to thoroughbass because if a chord contains a dissonance, it is dissonant. For modern musicians, the term dissonance is foreign to us. Today we use the term suspension to refer to concept of dissonance.

The concept of a dissonance comes from counterpoint. In terms of basic counterpoint rules, you determine whether or not an interval between two voices is dissonant or not based on a few simple rules. It's important to note that we only check for whether a note is a dissonance if it's on a strong beat[1].

Rules for Identifying Dissonant Notes in Simple Counterpoint Exercises

1. Dissonances can only occur on strong beats.

[1]Sometimes in a meter like $\frac{4}{4}$, you can have strong beat on beats one and three, but you can also have a version of $\frac{4}{4}$ that has a strong beat on every beat.

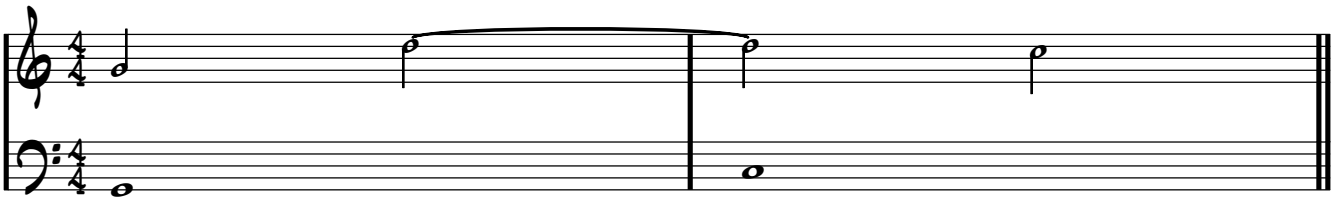
2. All augmented and diminished intervals are dissonant.
3. All Second, fourth, and seventh intervals are dissonant.

There is some confusion on whether or not the fourth is a dissonant interval. This comes from confusion about what the term dissonance means. The term dissonance isn't a question of how harsh the interval sounds, it's a question about whether or not in linear or contrapuntal contexts does the interval require downward resolution when it occurs on a strong beat? Sensitive ears will hear this tendency to resolve downard.

One of the conflicts during the early days of thoroughbass was this notion of determining which note was dissonant. The old rules of counterpoint didn't quite fit the new thoroughbass system, and alterations to the rules were made. There are some places where based on the context of the chord being played, intervals that aren't dissonant become dissonant. An example of this is the *six five* figure where the fifth becomes dissonant, and the *four three* figure where the third becomes dissonant.

Thus far we have only discussed which notes are dissonant in the context of thoroughbass. Now we will discuss how dissonances are treated in thoroughbass. Dissonances have three requirements:

Example 26: A Simple Dissonance



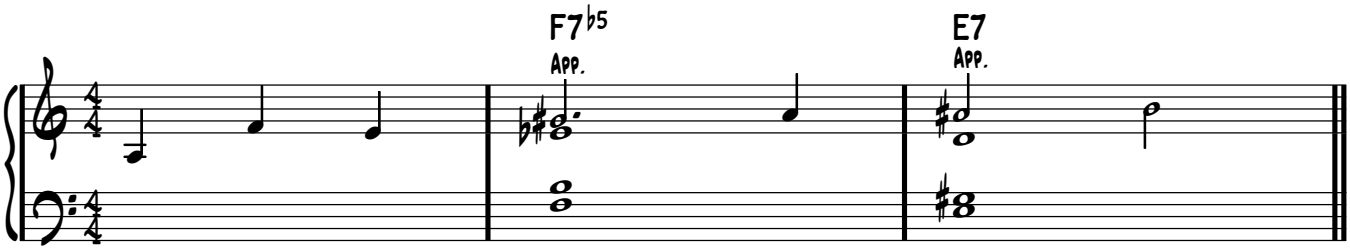
Dissonance Treatment

1. Dissonances must be prepared as a consonant note.
2. Dissonances must sound as a dissonance on the beat.
3. Dissonances must resolve down by step to a consonance.

One of the most exciting concepts in thoroughbass is the appoggiatura. The appoggiatura is a dissonance that lacks the preparation step. The effect of preparation is to soften the harsh qualities of unprepared dissonances. Appoggiaturas have been widely used for hundreds of years for stark harmonic colors and shocking effects.

The appoggiatura was used to the extreme by composers like Richard Wagner, Alexander Scriabin, and Hugo Wolf. In this example you can see appoggiaturas that are a half step below the actual note of the chord in the melody, we can see that the G♯ is occuring on the beat here instead of the A in the bar with $F7^{(\flat 5)}$ chord and the A♯ is on the beat instead of the of the E7 chord:

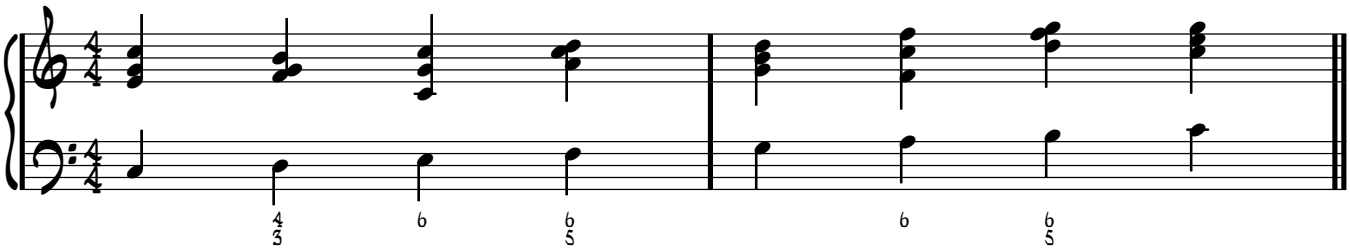
Example 27: Appoggiaturas In Tristan and Isolde by Wagner



If we take the concept of the appoggiatura to its extreme, we can think of it as a way that any note of chord can have a note that isn't a structural note of the chord, as long as the non-structural note feels connected to the structral one. This combined with that natural inclination of dissonant notes to move, we can also elaborate the appoggiatura with extra melodic notes, as long as the core sound of the appoggiatura isn't lost.

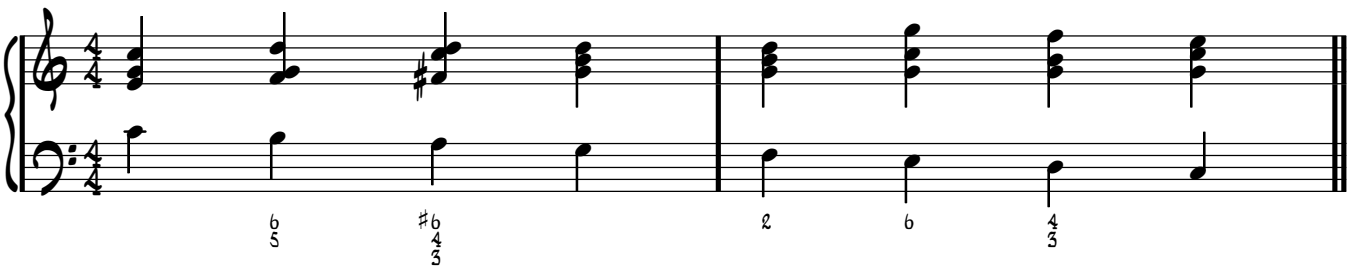
In thoroughbass, the bassline is the most essential element of music. For example, J. S. Bach thought that music comes from the bass. This led to the eventual development of a concept called the *rule of the octave*. This is a short set of rules for composing harmonies from a bassline that sound classical. When it comes to moving around simple triads, we need to need to know that when the bass line moves by skip (thirds) that there will be two notes in common from the previous chord, and when we move by leap (fourths and fifths) there will be one note in common from the previous chord. When the bass moves by step, things get a bit more complex because there are no shared notes between the two chords.

Example 28: Rule of the Octave Ascending in Major



For scale degree six descending there is what is called, in modern terms, a secondary dominant to the five. And on scale degree four descending, we have the figure two, which is short for a two four six chord. Anytime a the figure of a two shows up, it means that the dissonance is in the bass.

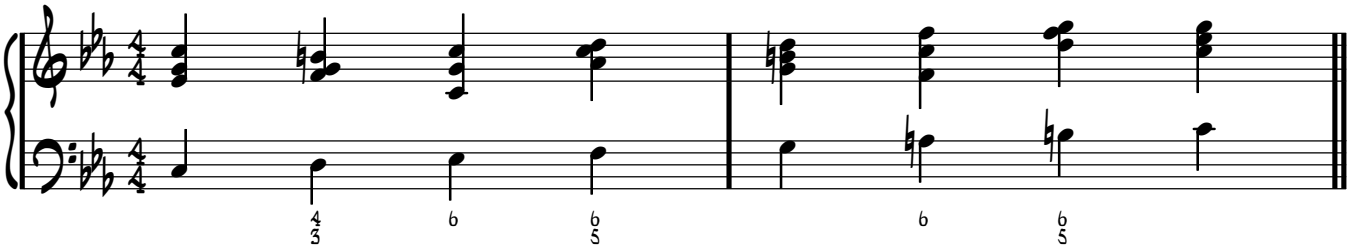
Example 29: Rule of the Octave Descending in Major



One area of conern that we haven't touched on yet is the question of whether parallel fifths or octaves are allowed in classical harmony. The answer to this question, suprisingly, is yes. The only place where parallel fifths and octaves are to be strictly avoided is between the outer voices. The reason for the strictness with parallel perfect intervals is because when studying Bach chorales, we avoid them because Bach avoided them. There are only a few examples of *illegal* parallel fifths in all of his 371 chorales. As long as the two outer voices don't have two successive fifths or octaves moving in the same direction between the outer voices, we're good to go.

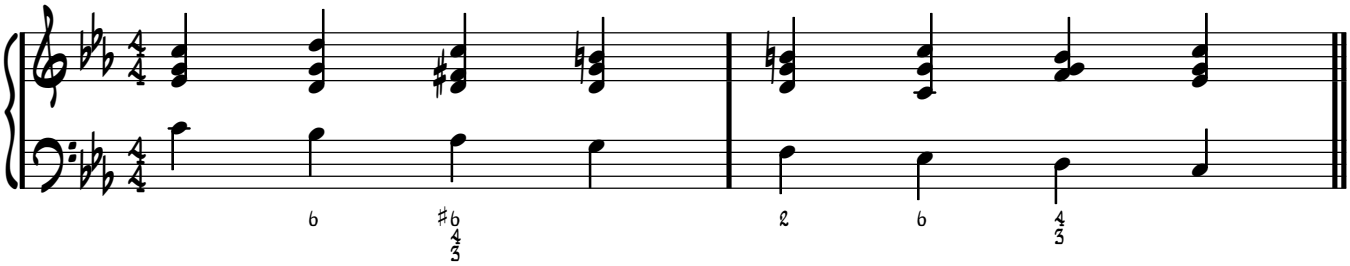
For the minor version of the rule of the octave, it's almost exactly the same except for a few small changes. The ascending version uses the raised sixth and seventh scale degrees in the bass. And descending, we take the flatted route.

Example 30: Rule of the Octave Ascending in Minor



A great approach to learning the rule of the octave is to try to make it so that the majority of the time the motion between the melody and bass notes either has one note being stationary while the other moves, or it has both notes moving in opposite directions. The names for those types of motion are oblique and contrary motion respectively.

Example 31: Rule of the Octave Descending in Minor



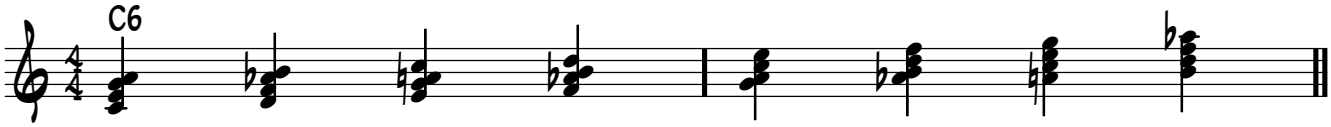
Chapter 6

Barry's Harmonic Concepts

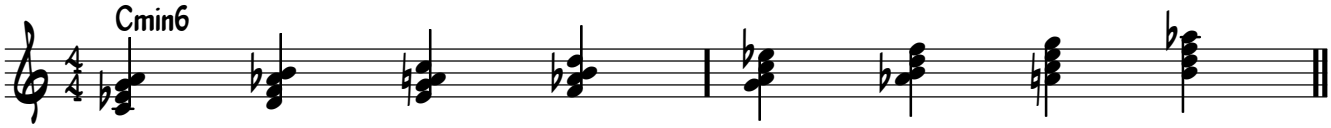
6.1 The Scale of Chords

Barry's *scale of chords* concept is all about breaking out of the mold of the standard chord shapes and enabling harmonic movement. Instead of seeing each chord as a set of four notes, we can reimagine them as two superimposed chords that create an eight note scale. To create this eight note scale we take our original four notes and add the four notes of a diminished chord starting a step above the root of the chord. This leads to the creation of four scales of chords. We have the major sixth diminished scale, the minor sixth diminished scale, the dominant seventh diminished scale, and the dominant seventh flat five diminished scale.

Example 32: Major Sixth Diminished Scale of Chords



Example 33: Minor Sixth Diminished Scale of Chords



Example 34: Dominant Seventh Diminished Scale of Chords



Example 35: Dominant Seventh Flat Five Diminished Scale of Chords



6.2 Borrowing

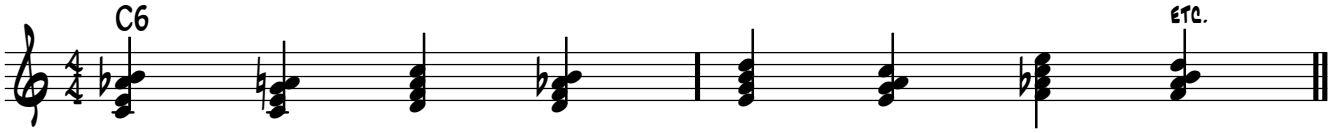
The concept of *borrowing* is quite similar to the appoggiatura. Looking at the above scale of chords example, we call the diminshed chords, *off chords*. When we talk about borrowing notes, we are talking about playing a single chord whose notes belong to the on chord *and* the off chord. For example, we can play the C6 chord and borrow the B from the Ddim7 . We can even do this in sequence like so:

Example 36: Borrowing a Notes from the Off Chord



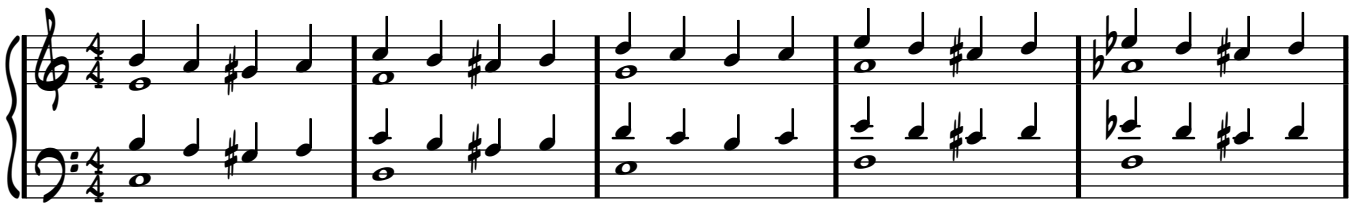
Instead of borrowing a single note we can also borrow two notes from the other chord:

Example 37: Borrowing Two Notes from the Off Chord



Here is a beautiful Barry Harris exercise based on borrowing:

Example 38: Sequetial Borrowing





6.3 Musical Genesis

Barry would often go into a whimsical explanation of where music comes from. He would say that in the beginning God created the twelve notes of the chromatic scale. And, from that scale He divided it in two to create the two whole tone scales. The two whole tone scales are *man* and *woman*. We can see in each diminished chord that, two of the notes come from one whole tone scale, and the other two come from the other whole tone scale. When you take the diminished chord and lower a note, you get a dominant chord. If you do this for each of the four notes, you will see that a diminished chord contains four dominant chords. These chords are said to be related, they're *family*. If you raise a note, you get a minor seventh flat five. The minor seventh flat five chords are the what barry called the *minor sixth on the fifth* of each of the dominant chords.

Example 39: Chromatic Scale



Example 40: The Two Whole Tone Scales



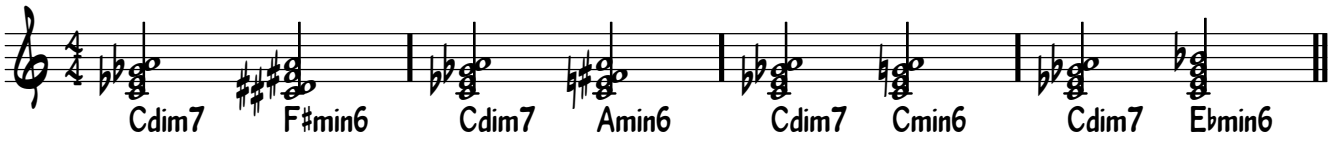
Example 41: The Three Diminished Chords



Example 42: The Four Dominants From Each Diminished Chord



Example 43: The Four Minor Sixths From Each Diminished Chord



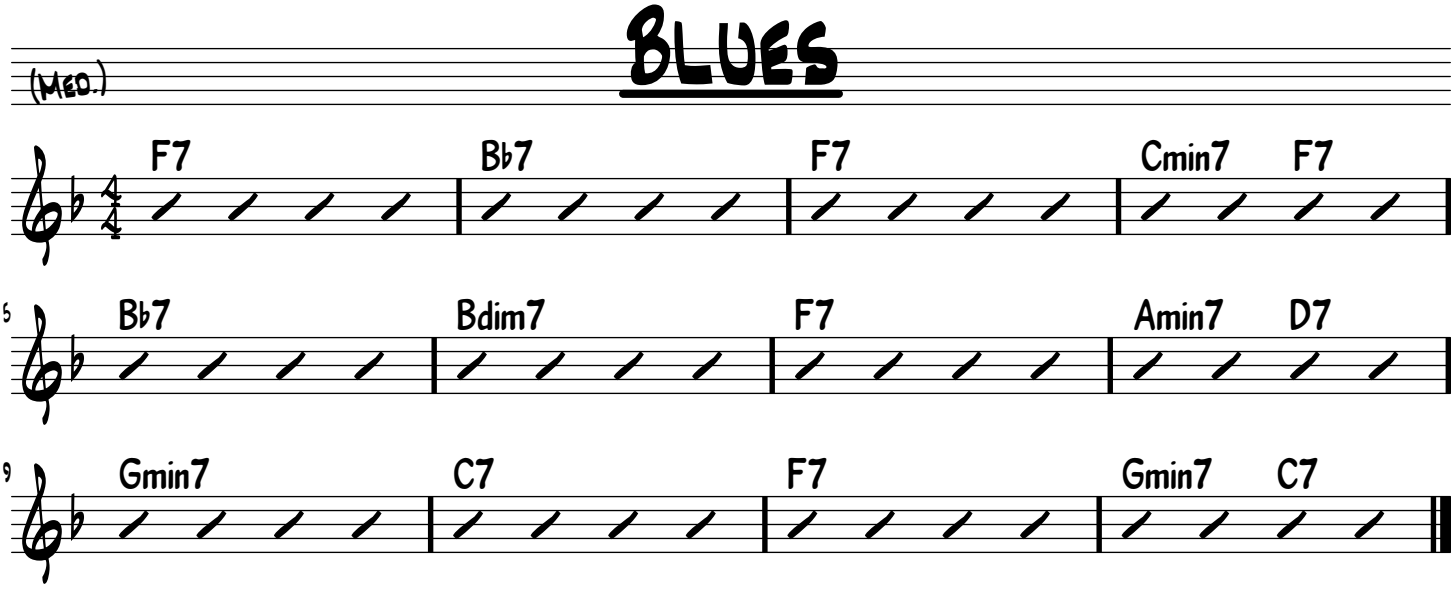
Part IV

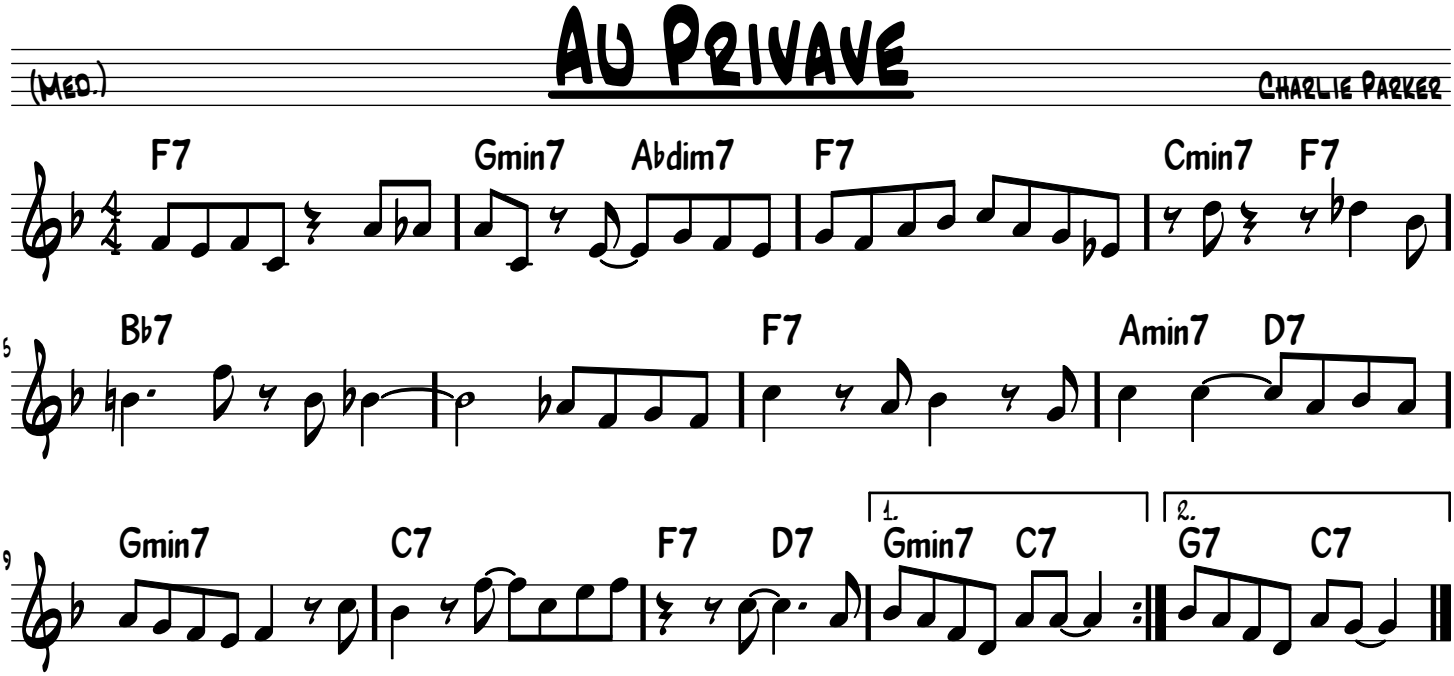
Applications

Chapter 7

Blues

7.1 Tune with Changes




Au Privave
(Med.)
Charlie Parker
F7
Gmin7
Abdim7
F7
Cmin7
F7
Bb7
F7
Amin7
D7
Gmin7
C7
F7
D7
1.
Gmin7
C7
2.
G7
C7


Blues For Alice
(Med.)
Charlie Parker
F6
Emin7b5
A7
Dmin7
G7
Cmin7
F7
Bb7
Bbmin7
Eb7
Fmaj7
Abmin7
Db7
Gmin7
C7
F7
Gmin7
C7

7.2 Scale Map

Example 44: Scale Map: Blues



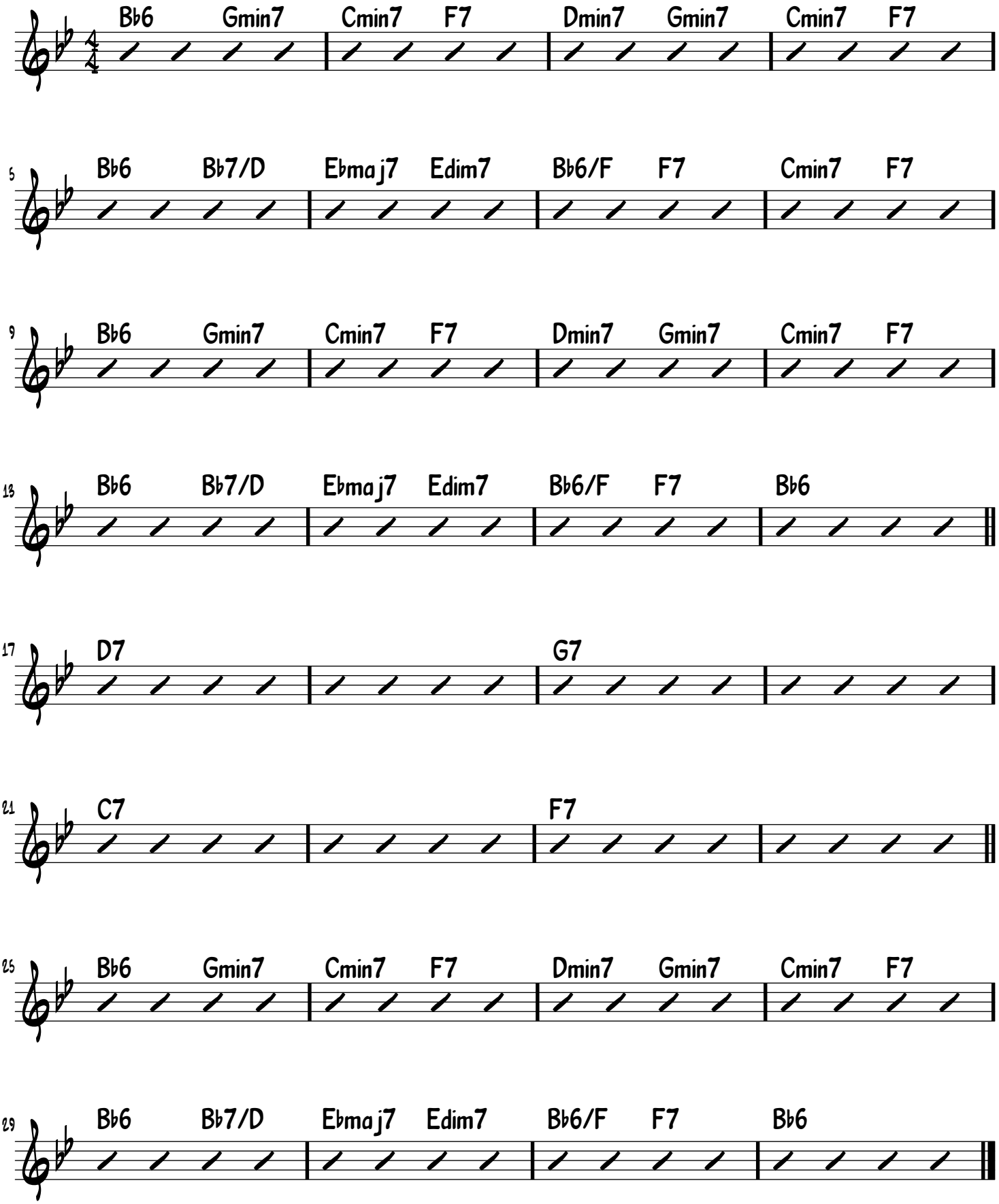
Chapter 8

Rhythm

8.1 Tune with Changes

RHYTHM

(MED.)


Bb6 Gmin7 Cmin7 F7 Dmin7 Gmin7 Cmin7 F7
5
Bb6 Bb7/D Ebmaj7 Edim7 Bb6/F F7 Cmin7 F7
9
Bb6 Gmin7 Cmin7 F7 Dmin7 Gmin7 Cmin7 F7
13
Bb6 Bb7/D Ebmaj7 Edim7 Bb6/F F7 Bb6
17
D7 G7
21
C7 F7
25
Bb6 Gmin7 Cmin7 F7 Dmin7 Gmin7 Cmin7 F7
29
Bb6 Bb7/D Ebmaj7 Edim7 Bb6/F F7 Bb6

Anthropology

(Fast)

Charlie Parker



8.2 Scale Map

Example 45: Scale Map: Rhythm



Chapter 9

How High the Moon

9.1 Tune with Changes

How High the Moon

(Med.)

Morgan Lewis



9.2 Scale Map

Example 46: Scale Map: How High the Moon



9.3 Exemplar Comping

Example 47: Head Arrangement: How High the Moon




26
E♭maj7
Amin7♭5
D7
G6
Amin7
D7
30
Bmin7
E7
Amin7
D7
G6

9.4 Exemplar Solo

Example 48: Solo: How High the Moon



Ornithology

(Med.)

Charlie Parker



Chapter 10

What Is This Thing Called Love?

10.1 Tune with Changes

What Is This Thing Called Love

(Med.)

Cole Porter



10.2 Scale Map

Example 49: Scale Map: What is This Thing Called Love?



Chapter 11

Body and Soul

11.1 Body and Soul

Body and Soul

(Ballad)

Johnny Green



11.2 Scale Map

Example 50: Scale Map: Body and Soul




21
Dmin7
G7
Cmaj7
Ebmin7
23
Dmin7
G7
C7
B7
Bb7
25
Ebmin7
Bb7
Ebmin7
Ab7
27
Dbmaj7
Gb7
Fmin7
Edim7
29
Ebmin7
Cmin7b5
F7
31
Bbmin7
Ebmin7
Ab7
Db6

Chapter 12

April in Paris

12.1 April in Paris

April in Paris

(Med.)

Vernon Duke



12.2 Scale Map

Example 51: Scale Map: April in Paris



Chapter 13

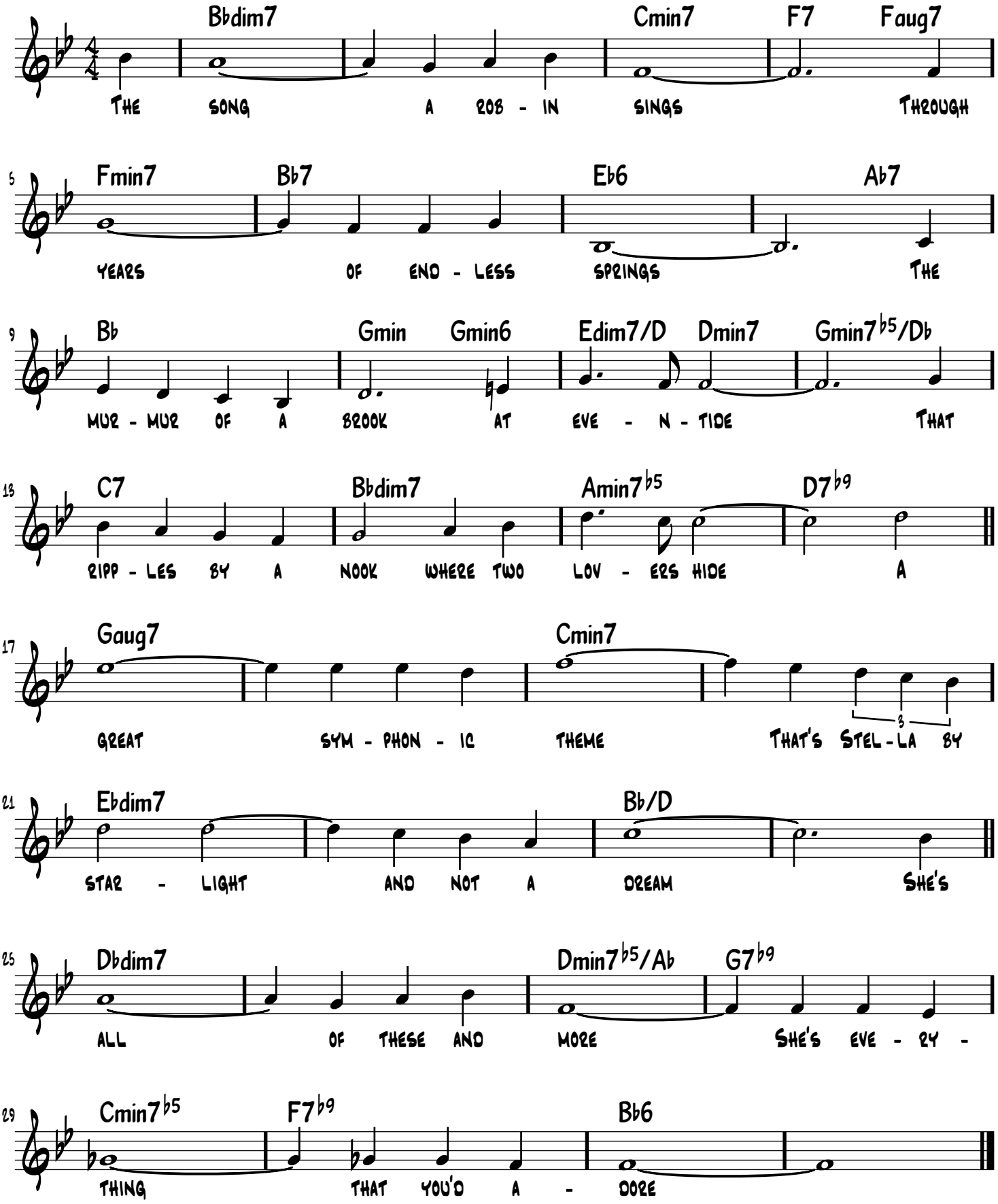
Stella By Starlight

13.1 Tune with Changes

Stella by Starlight

(Med.)

Victor Young



13.2 Scale Map

Example 52: Scale Map: Stella by Starlight



Chapter 14

'Round Midnight

14.1 'Round Midnight

'Round Midnight

(Ballad)

Thelonious Monk



14.2 Scale Map

Example 53: Scale Map: 'Round Midnight




19
Cmin7♭5
B7♭5
B♭7♭5
21
A♭min7
Fmin7
B♭7
Cmin7♭5
F7
23
D♭7
C♭7
A♭min7
Fmin7
B♭7
25
E♭min/D
E♭min/D♭
Cdim7
A♭min7
D♭7
27
Cmin7♭5
Bmin7
E7
B♭min7
E♭7
29
A♭min7
D♭7
E♭min7
A♭7♭5
31
Cmin7♭5
B7♭5
B♭7
E♭6

Chapter 15

All the Things You Are

15.1 Tune with Changes

All The Things You Are

(Med.)

Jerome Kern



15.2 Scale Map

Example 54: Scale Map: All The Things You Are



Chapter 16

Cherokee

16.1 Cherokee

Cherokee

(Fast)

Ray Noble



16.2 Scale Map

Example 55: Scale Map: Cherokee




41
Amin7
D7
G6
45
Gmin7
C7
Cmin7
Faug7
49
B♭6
Faug7
Fmin7
B♭7
53
E♭maj7
A♭7
57
B♭maj7
C7
61
Cmin7
F7
B♭6

Chapter 17

Indiana

17.1 Changes

Indiana

(Med.)

James F. Hanley



Donna Lee

(Fast)

Charlie Parker



17.2 Scale Map

Example 56: Scale Map: Indiana



Chapter 18

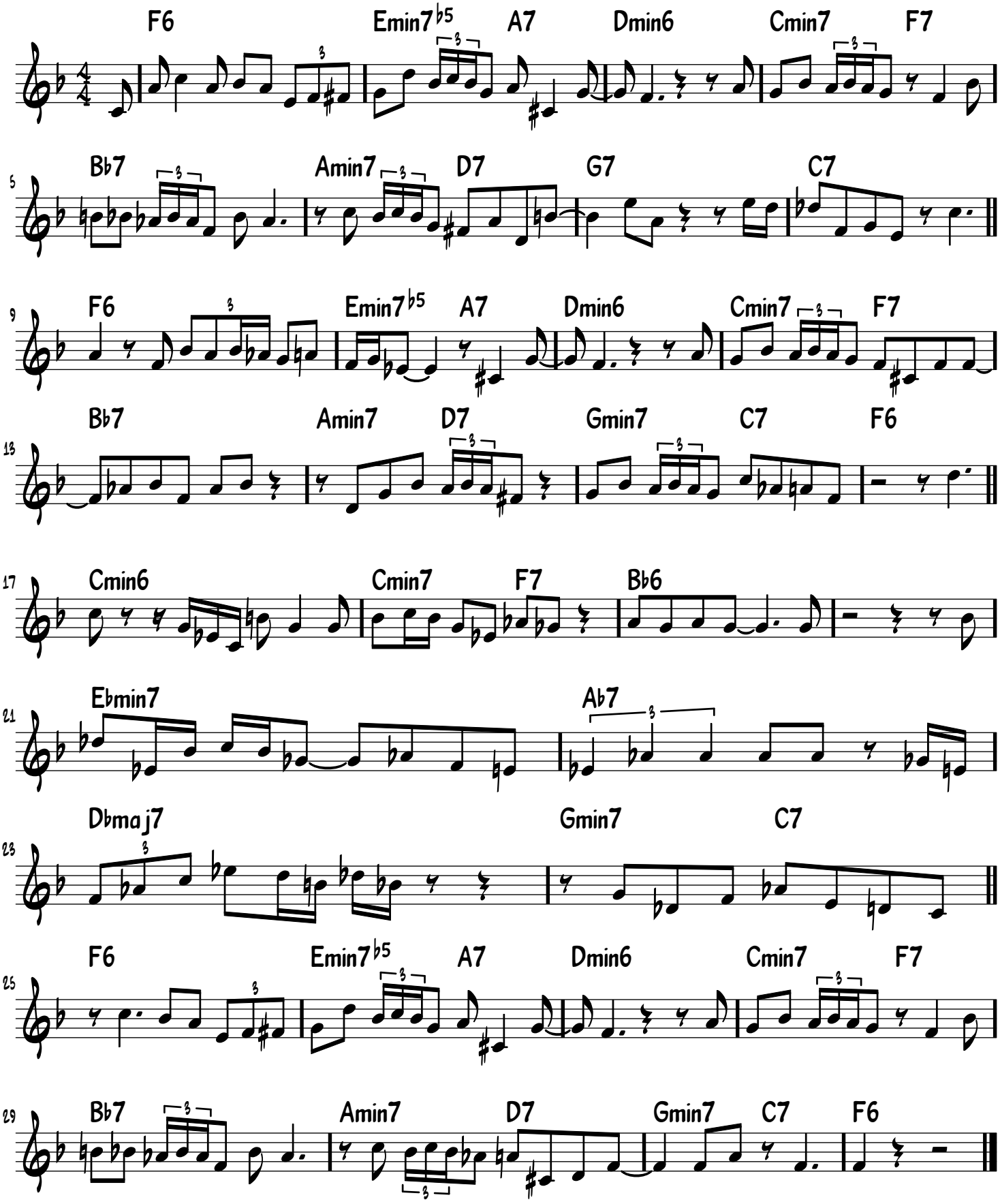
Confirmation

18.1 Tune with Changes

Confirmation

(Med.)

Charlie Parker



18.2 Scale Map

Example 57: Scale Map: Confirmation



Glossary

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musical practice - what musical practitioners do, including their *descriptions* of what they do, what music is, how music works, and how to make it. These descriptions are not musical theories because they are not attempts to explain how music is experienced.

musical practitioner - a musician whose authority comes from demonstrated musical skill and practice rather than from a theoretical system.

musical theory - an attempt to describe how music is experienced in some systematic fashion.

oral tradition - musical knowledge transmitted through speech, demonstration, teaching, memory, and imitation rather than through a stable written source.

scale maps - A preparatory exercise for linear improvisation that gives a *map* of scales that outlines the changes of the tune.

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